Status Inconsistency and Geographic Mobility in the United States

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Abstract

This study examines how neighborhood status and individual status jointly shape geographic mobility in the United States. Drawing on restricted-use American Community Survey data, we conceptualize neighborhood status as the relative standing of a census tract's median family income compared to demographically similar reference neighborhoods, and individual status as a household's relative income rank within its tract. Building on comparison theory and status inconsistency perspectives, we test whether mismatches between neighborhood and individual status influence short-distance (within-county) and long-distance (between-county) mobility. Multinomial logistic models reveal that disadvantaged neighborhood status increases within-county mobility, particularly when paired with high individual status, supporting spatial assimilation arguments. Conversely, low individual status in high-status neighborhoods heightens mobility, consistent with relative deprivation theory rather than status signaling. Results suggest that status inconsistency plays a central role in residential decision-making and that neighborhood status primarily affects short-distance mobility. The findings advance research on stratification and internal migration by integrating relative contextual and positional mechanisms.

Keyword: Neighborhood status, individual status, status inconsistency, geographic mobility, internal migration

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1. Introduction

It is believed that individuals or households are likely to move when living in neighborhoods where socioeconomic conditions or community quality are disadvantaged than other neighborhoods. This is not always the case, however. On the one hand, some households remain to stay in the communities where socioeconomic attributes are inferior to others. On the other hand, some households in the neighborhoods with seemingly favorable socioeconomic characteristics still reveal a notable relocation tendency. Why?

Indeed, the implications of socioeconomic characteristics are primarily manifested in the comparative regard, which gives rise to social status, that is, relative positions in socioeconomic hierarchies (Lenski 1954). Moreover, status is multiple. In addition to neighborhood status derived from the comparison of socioeconomic attributes among communities, households also possess other kinds of status, such as individual status originating from their relative positions in the local socioeconomic distribution, i.e., the status due to the comparison to the neighbors. Moreover, as Firebaugh and Schroeder (2009) indicate, the implication of neighborhood or individual status is intertwined and contingent on each other, leading to opposite impacts on individual behaviors. Specifically, households residing in a community with high neighborhood status sprung from contrasting neighborhood socioeconomic characteristics – such as median income – to other neighborhoods may have low individual status featured by their socioeconomic status relative to their prosperous neighbors in the same community. In contrast, households holding low neighborhood status may fairly enjoy a high individual status in terms of their relative location in the socioeconomic distribution of the community (Firebaugh and Schroeder 2009). The combinations of status may further lead to status inconsistency (Lenski 1954): the difference between households' position in neighborhood and individual statuses in this case.

This article sets out to examine the effect of neighborhood status on geographic mobility in the U.S., and how that relationship varies with households' individual status. It concentrates on role of status inconsistency between these two interrelated social features in shaping households' relocation tendencies. That is, households living in low-status neighborhoods but owning high individual status, or those in high-status communities while possessing low individual status.

Regarding the incongruency between the interdependent neighborhood status and individual status, four mobility-related possibilities emerge. Although households are prone to leave low-status communities, their high out-mobility rate may be alleviated when enjoying favorable individual status or relative income to the neighbors (Luttmer 2005) which compensates for the disadvantaged neighborhood status. However, given that neighborhood characteristics are essential for residential attainment, households living in a socioeconomically disadvantaged community but possessing relatively privileged individual status tend to be more rather than less likely to move for upward mobility (Galster and Turner 2017). As for households residing in high-status communities, their relocation propensity may instead become noticeable as a consequence of the magnified relative deprivation (Bernburg, Thorlindsson, and Sigfusdottir 2009) when experiencing underprivileged individual status. Nevertheless, given that advantaged neighborhood attributes signal social status, households appear not to be likely to leave a community despite possessing low individual status (Marsh and Gibb 2011).

This study employs the data from the restricted-use American Community Survey (ACS) to investigate the four possibilities and test the corresponding hypotheses. It contributes to our understanding of how neighborhood status is associated with geographic mobility – including short-distance residential mobility and long-distance internal migration – which is remained understudied. More importantly, this article adds to the residential mobility/internal migration

literature by delving into the extent to which how the impact of neighborhood status on geographic mobility is contingent on individual status. The current work highlights the combinations of social status in different socioeconomic distributions in shaping American households' moving tendencies. It also sheds light on the mechanisms underlying the relationship between status inconsistency and households' relocation behaviors.

2. Neighborhood Status on Geographic Mobility

Neighborhood contexts shape geographic mobility via absolute characteristics and relative social implications. Concerning absolute neighborhood environments, individuals or households are likely to exhibit a higher propensity to consider or conduct relocation when located in a community where undesirable conditions such as higher poverty concentrations (Gabriel 2018), low income (Yang et al. 2021), physical disorder (Sharp and Warner 2018), or high crime rates (Hipp 2009) prevail. The impact of absolute neighborhood environments on relocation tendency also operates through residential (dis)satisfaction. That is, individuals or households who are less satisfied with neighborhood conditions are likely to leave a community (Speare 1974; Landale and Guest 1985). Nevertheless, absolute neighborhood characteristics and the consequent subjective perception or evaluation of a community are substantially intertwined (Lee, Oropesa, and Kanan 1994). As Speare (1974: 175) states, "[d]issatisfaction can result from a change in the needs of a household, a change in the social and physical amenities offered by a particular location, or a change in the standards used to evaluate these factors."

In addition to absolute community conditions and relevant residential satisfaction, neighborhood characteristics also fashion geographic mobility via their relative implications based

on the underlying comparison mechanism, resulting in neighborhood reputations. More precisely, according to Evans and Lee (2020), neighborhood reputations are the socially constructed identities of places aligning with the relative position of neighborhoods in the status hierarchy. Neighborhood reputations are also "the meaning and the esteem the residents and other involved parties attribute to a neighborhood" (Permentier 2012). As indicated, net of the effect of residential satisfaction, the impact of neighborhood reputations on relocation tendency remains, suggesting their independent and non-negligible role in shaping geographic mobility (Permentier, Ham, and Bolt 2009). This is to say, individuals or households are likely to leave a community when perceiving negative neighborhood reputations despite a high degree of residential satisfaction.

Neighborhood characteristics, in consequence, are status-related and expected to cast geographic mobility by relative standing within the neighborhood hierarchy. As claimed in the spatial assimilation literature, neighborhood socioeconomic features, such as the average measures of family income, crucially stand for status attainment and social mobility (Leibbrand et al. 2019; Goldsmith et al. 2017; Huang, South, and Spring 2017). In that sense, community conditions are not idiosyncratic and isolated from other communities but embedded in the overall neighborhood structure. As Firebaugh and Schroeder (2009) state in their happiness study, individuals tend to be happier when possessing a higher neighborhood status which originates from comparing the median income of the neighborhood wherein the individuals or households reside to other neighborhoods as the reference level. Inspired by Firebaugh and Schroeder (2009), taking neighborhood status into account is also crucial for explaining the relationship between neighborhood contexts and geographic mobility. This is because geographic mobility is motivated by both push and pull factors, and individuals or households relocate themselves not only due to

poor community quality but also the presence of alternative neighborhoods with comparatively better conditions.

Building on Firebaugh and Schroeder (2009), this study employs Jasso's (2001b) comparison theory and the corresponding analytical framework to integrate the objective implication of neighborhood status characterized by comparing socioeconomic features of a neighborhood to other neighborhoods as the reference group, and the subjective domain of perceived esteem in the neighborhood hierarchy based on the neighborhood reputations literature. The assumption of comparison theory, according to Jasso, is that "humans compare the amounts or levels of their holding of goods and bads to the amount or levels they desire or expect or think appropriate, thereby experiencing happiness, well-being, self-esteems, relative deprivation, and the sense of justice" (Jasso 2001b). Thus, neighborhood socioeconomic features preferred by the general residents not only imply neighborhood status but also bring about subjective feelings.

Specifically, in the comparison theory:

$$Z = \theta \, ln \frac{x}{\phi E(X)} \tag{2.1}$$

where Z is the basic comparison function cardinal holdings in large groups when the comparison reward is unknown, x is the individual's own holding, and $E(X)$ is the comparison holding. θ denotes the signature constant, whose sign is positive for goods and negative for bads, and ϕ refers to the individual's idiosyncrasy parameter. The comparison outcome of Z derived from the comparison of socioeconomic characteristics – or, say, the ratio of actual holdings to the expected holdings of the comparison group – results in subjective feelings. In this case, the comparison function and the corresponding measure of Z capture both the objective and subjective or perceived features of neighborhood status.

The change in Z is indicated as:

$$CZ = Z_2 - Z_1 \tag{2.2}$$

where Z_1 and Z_2 are the comparison outcomes at time 1 and time 2, respectively. Here CZ refers to the potential change in Z via relocation. Thus, plugging these two equations yields the function for the expected change in Z:

$$CZ' = \ln \frac{x_2 E(X_1) \phi_1}{x_1 E(X_2) \phi_2} \tag{2.3}$$

Given that the individual usually takes multiple destinations for relocation into consideration simultaneously, the potential change in Z is written as:

$$CZ' = \ln \frac{E(X_2) E(X_1) \phi_1}{x_1 E(X_2) \phi_2} \tag{2.4}$$

where $E(X_2)$ refers to the summarized neighborhood attainment for all potential destinations. Assuming that the individual's idiosyncrasy parameter, ϕ, remains constant before and after residential mobility, CZ' is reduced to:

$$CZ' = \ln \frac{E(X_1)}{x_1} \tag{2.5}$$

Individuals are likely to leave the neighborhood when the potential changes in Z are greater than zero, i.e., $CZ' > 0$. As such, the individuals are prone to move when the comparison level of neighborhood status is greater than the current one, i.e., $E(X_1) > x_1$. Accordingly, this study hypothesizes that the households with below-comparison level neighborhood status, i.e., low neighborhood status, are likely to move out of a community (Hypothesis 1).

However, households with favorable neighborhood status may have a less privileged relative position in the local socioeconomic distribution which motivates geographic mobility. As

indicated, households in a high-income community generally have advantaged neighborhood status derived from comparing neighborhood characteristics to other neighborhoods. Those households, meanwhile, may possess less advantaged or even disadvantaged individual status considering the residency of high-income households in the same community (Firebaugh and Schroeder 2009). Consequently, the implications of living in a high-status neighborhood for geographic mobility may not be as straightforward as hypothesized above when considering the potential low individual status.

This study elaborates on the effects of neighborhood status on relocation practices by introducing the interrelated but probably contradictory implication of individual status. This study also advances the framework of Firebaugh and Schroeder (2009) by measuring neighborhood status and individual status with two different indicators rather than simply contrasting average neighborhood income to other neighborhoods and the households in the community. Specifically, the current work employs the comparison function indicated above to evaluate neighborhood status, and Jasso's status function, as shown later, to assess individual status. By doing such, it captures the dynamics between these two types of status without submerging one of them in the other. More substantially, this strategy enables the current work to investigate whether the influence of neighborhood status on geographic mobility varies by individual status without assuming the highly negative relationship between the two kinds of status.

The following discussions illustrate the possible mobility patterns regarding the interaction between neighborhood status and individual status. Attention is particularly paid to the relocation tendency for households living in low-status neighborhoods while possessing advantaged individual status, and the mobility pattern for households sharing high neighborhood status meanwhile holding low individual status.

3. Low Neighborhood Status but High Individual Status

Although households residing in low-status neighborhoods are hypothesized to exhibit an apparent propensity to relocate themselves, as discussed earlier, this pattern may depend on individual status originating in the comparison between household socioeconomic features and that of the neighbors (see also Pals and Kaplan 2013 for the discussion of relative disadvantage). Specifically, two possible pictures exist when a household holding contradictory statuses: disadvantaged neighborhood status but advantaged individual status. On the one hand, inspired by the spatial assimilation perspective, the evident geographic mobility tendency owing to low neighborhood status may become more noticeable when holding prosperous individual status. On the other hand, based on the relative income hypothesis, the higher geographic mobility propensity may be virtually alleviated and turn to be less considerable because of the favorable individual status, which compensates for the disadvantaged neighborhood status.

Prior seminal works have indicated that relative income is essential in characterizing individuals' status as well as in shaping self-esteem, happiness, and well-being (Duesenberry 1949; Easterlin 1974; Frank 1985). More precisely, according to the relative income hypothesis, the relationship between income and individuals' subjective well-being or happiness is mainly derived from the relative instead of the absolute implication of income (Blanchflower and Oswald 2004; Clark, Frijters, and Shields 2008; Clark and Oswald 1996; Luttmer 2005; McBride 2001; Oshio, Nozaki, and Kobayashi 2011). Thus, net of the effect of absolute income, individuals possessing advantaged relative income than the reference level tend to experience a higher degree of well-being, happiness, or satisfaction (Alderson and Katz-Gerro 2016; Wolbring, Keuschnigg, and Negele 2013).

As indicated by Gori-Maia (2013), in the Brazilian case, controlling for family income, individuals in a high-income community but with a less advantaged relative income are prone to reveal income sufficiency; in the same vein, as neighborhood income declines, individuals are more likely to perceive income sufficiency. Besides, the relationship between relative income and individual well-being or happiness also depends on individual characteristics. For instance, Distante (2013) has shown that, based on the UK case, people tend to express a higher degree of subjective life satisfaction when their household incomes are superior to the neighborhood, especially for the poor residents (see also Dittmann and Goebel 2010). Accordingly, households with higher individual status relative to the neighbors are likely to enjoy a greater extent of subjective well-being or satisfaction.

The relationship between relative income and subjective well-being or happiness also depends on community contexts. Focusing on the case of South Korea, Kim (2020) has pointed out that the individual perceived social status, i.e., the subjective status of relative standing on the social ladder, is positively related to subjective well-being. Therefore, the higher the subjective status a person has, the greater the individual subjective well-being. Additionally, the positive relationship becomes even more evident when residing in low-quality communities. Kim's findings, to some extent, suggest a further crucial role of relative status for the residents in low-status neighborhoods. In other words, individual status plays a more significant part in shaping the subjective well-being of the inhabitants in low-status communities than those whose neighborhood status is advantaged. Thus, based on the relative income hypothesis, the evident relocation tendency for the households in low-status neighborhoods is expected to diminish and be alleviated when their individual status is more favorable (Hypothesis 2).

On the other hand, building on the spatial assimilation model, holding relatively advantaged individual status compared to the neighbors may virtually trigger instead countervail out-mobility, especially for the households in comparatively low-status neighborhoods. Specifically, given the centrality of neighborhood characteristics to status attainment, households are likely to relocate themselves to the communities that accord with their improved socioeconomic status for social mobility, particularly when their neighborhood status is less privileged (Rossi 1955; Rossi and Shlay 1982). As the spatial assimilation literature has indicated, neighborhood characteristics are mainly associated with individuals' human capital and socioeconomic status (Alba and Logan 1993). Households who experienced upward mobilities in their individual features tend to relocate themselves into the more advantaged neighborhoods, converting their improved socioeconomic status into neighborhood outcomes (Leibbrand et al. 2019). Accordingly, individual socioeconomic status plays a vital role in explaining the disparities in neighborhood characteristics (Iceland et al. 2010; Leibbrand et al. 2019; Park and Iceland 2011; Rosen 1974; Taeuber 1975; Tiebout 1956).

Previous studies have pointed out the impact of the status discrepancy between the individual and the community level on residential mobility, including the inconsistency between higher individual status and lower neighborhood status. Broadly speaking, households are likely to leave a community when their individual status is higher than their neighbors. For instance, as Galster and Turner (2017) indicate in their status discrepancy study, being above the neighborhood median income motivates relocation. Likewise, an investigation by Musterd et al. (2016) has also found that, in addition to those who are below the neighborhood median, individuals positioned above the average neighborhood socioeconomic characteristics relative to their peers around the median are more likely to leave a neighborhood, suggesting the role of social distance in shaping

geographic mobility. In that sense, households with an individual status superior to the neighbors tend to exhibit a higher rather than lower relocation tendency compared to those whose socioeconomic features are similar or inferior to the neighbors. Thus, building on the spatial assimilation model, households are expected to show a notably higher instead of lower propensity to leave a low-status neighborhood when their individual status relative to the neighbors is more advantaged and downwardly mismatched (Hypothesis 3).

4. High Neighborhood Status and Low Individual Status

Households living in an advantaged neighborhood may hold less favorable individual status, as Firebaugh and Schroeder (2009) demonstrate. Moreover, according to relative deprivation theory, a disadvantaged position in the local socioeconomic distribution may further induce out-mobility. This is not always the case, however, when the countervailing status signaling perspective is introduced.

It is widely acknowledged that individuals or households with a less favorable relative position in the community socioeconomic distribution, such as low relative income, tend to perceive a higher degree of relative deprivation, that is, subjective feelings of inequality derived from the relative position compared to the reference groups (Runciman 1966). Holding a low relative income in a community – or high relative deprivation in the same token, therefore, motivates geographic mobility for attaining the comparatively advantaged or avoiding disadvantaged local standing, net of the effect of absolute economic benefits (Stark and Yitzhaki 1988; Stark et al. 2020; Stark et al. 2009; Stark 2006).

As shown by Flippen (2013) in the internal migration study, in general, black and white movers in the U.S. tend to enjoy higher relative social positions in terms of wage and occupational prestige than their stationary counterparts, suggesting the role of domestic migration in enhancing an individual's social standing even in the absence of the improvement in absolute standing. Concerning housing characteristics, Kuhlmann (2020) has also pointed out that people with a higher-than-SMSA-median income but living in smaller houses relative to their neighbors tend to express a low level of satisfaction with their housing conditions. Kuhlmann's findings suggest the negative relationship between relative position in terms of house size and income in a community and residential satisfaction (for property value, see Vera-Toscano and Ateca-Amestoy 2008). In their status discrepancy study, Galster and Turner (2017) have also indicated that being below the neighborhood median income provokes relocation of high-status households, providing support for the impact of relative deprivation on geographic mobility.

How individuals or households perceive relative deprivation depends on community contexts as well. Despite the same individual status, households in affluent neighborhoods may experience more significant relative deprivation than their counterparts in low-status neighborhoods. As Bernburg et al. (2009) illustrate in their study, the impact of economic relative deprivation on adolescent anger, normlessness, and delinquent and violent behavior is more noticeable for individuals in a community where economic deprivation is unusual. This is because, based on social comparison mechanisms, the local community in practice represents a window by which the residents perceive the standard of living of the society (Bernburg et al. 2009). Thus, even sharing similar individual statuses, households in a high-status neighborhood are more likely to be aware of the difference between their socioeconomic features and the neighbors, thereby resulting in a more disadvantaged perception than those in a low-status community. Accordingly,

based on the relative deprivation perspective, this study expects that households with disadvantaged individual status in high-status neighborhoods tend to exhibit a higher relocation tendency than those sharing the same individual status but residing in the communities with low neighborhood status (Hypothesis 4).

On the other hand, households in a prosperous community with possession of disadvantaged individual status compared to the neighbors may not necessarily reveal a more considerable geographic mobility tendency. As discussed above, in addition to individual socioeconomic features, neighborhood socioeconomic conditions featuring residential attainment are also crucial to indicate individuals' or households' social position or social status (Marsh and Gibb 2011). The consumption relative to others and the pursuit of the comparatively advantaged status enable individuals or households to signal their levels of status, although the magnitude of status signaling largely depends on the overall income level or status of the reference group (Ireland 1994; Hopkins and Kornienko 2004; Charles, Hurst, and Roussanov 2009).

Thus, households attempt to locate themselves in the most privileged communities they can afford, even if their relative positions in the socioeconomic distribution of the community are disadvantaged and individual statuses are less advantaged (Galster and Turner 2017; Marsh and Gibb 2011). As Bagwell and Bernheim (1996) review, in contrast to invidious comparison – the distinguish consumption patterns – of high socioeconomic status individuals, in Veblen's conspicuous consumption theory, individuals with low socioeconomic status may carry out the consumption practice named pecuniary emulation to conspicuously attain visible goods to be considered as members of the privileged strata.

Consequently, for the households with low individual status compared to the neighbors, the tendency to leave a community may be counterbalanced by high neighborhood status which

signals their privileged status. As Firebaugh and Schroeder (2009) suggest in their happiness study, the negative impact of being below the median neighborhood income, i.e., possessing lower individual status relative to the neighbors, on individual happiness appears to be offset by the residence in a prosperous community. Additionally, as found by Brodeur and Flèche (2019), individuals living in more well-off neighborhoods tend to hold greater life satisfaction, especially for those below the median neighborhood income (see also Ferrer-i-Carbonell 2005; Clark and Senik 2010). Based on the status signaling perspective, households with disadvantaged individual status in a high-status community are not expected to be more likely to relocate themselves than their same individual status peers in a low-status neighborhood (Hypothesis 5).

5. Data and Methods

This study relies on restricted-use data from the 2014–2019 American Community Survey (ACS) 1-year estimates to investigate the dynamics between neighborhood status and individual status in shaping households' geographic mobility. The ACS is a nationally representative survey conducted by the U.S. Census Bureau on a monthly basis and pooled across a calendar year. In 2010, the ACS replaced the census long-form as the source of social and economic data for population and housing characteristics in the U.S. The ACS has an annual sample size of around 3.5 million addresses, providing a 1-in-100 national random sample of the U.S. population. The ACS offers information on demographic, social, economic, and housing characteristics, including geographic mobility for households and individuals living in the 50 states and the District of Columbia. This study uses the most recent ACS data before the COVID-19 pandemic. The analytical sample is limited to household heads at least 25 years old and living in metropolitan areas one year ago. By doing so, this study largely excludes the respondents who moved with

families and those who enrolled in schools. Besides, given that geographic mobility is a function of distance, the following analyses concentrate on the households whose current or prior residence one year ago were in the contiguous U.S.

How to define a neighborhood is crucial in representing neighborhood contexts. As Firebaugh and Schroeder (2009) indicate, measuring neighborhood or community status from large geographic units, such as states or even counties, is likely to be subjected to the issue of lack of validity. Besides, as Brodeur and Flèche (2019) discuss, accessing the impact of socioeconomic features of the neighbors – neighbors' income in their case – from a relatively large geographic scale is challenging to control for the confounding variables underlying the observed relationship. Accordingly, this current study defines neighborhoods as census tracts to cope with the potential issues raised above. Despite the shortcomings in delineating neighborhoods (Crowder and South 2008), census tracts are more suitable for characterizing geographic mobility than the finer spatial levels such as block groups. Specifically, relative to smaller areas such as block groups, individuals or households moving between census tracts are assumed to experience more substantial changes in neighborhood environments. Observing residential mobility between census tracts is also in line with prior studies on neighborhood out-mobility (e.g., Crowder and South 2008; Crowder, Pais, and South 2012; Pais, Batson, and Monnat 2014). Regarding the number of census tracts and residents within census tracts, take the 2010 Census, for instance. There were 73,057 census tracts with a population size of approximately between 1,200 and 8,000 individuals.

The dependent variable and the majority of explanatory variables at the household head level are extracted from the ACS 2019. The dependent variable is geographic mobility since a reference point one year ago, including three categories: (1) lived in the same census tract (did not move), (2) moved between census tracts and within the same county (moved within-county), and

(3) moved between counties (moved between-county). Individuals are grouped into the first category if they had lived in the same census tract, including those who had lived in the same house and those who had lived in different houses one year earlier but within the same census tract. The second category usually refers to residential mobility, and the third one stands for internal migration. This operationalization is similar to prior residential mobility studies (Crowder and South 2008).

Given that geographic mobility is measured as household heads who had changed residence across census tracts since the reference point one year ago, lagged covariates at the census tract level are needed. Considering that the number of observations in each census tract tends to be small on the single year ACS, this study pools the five years of data before 2019, viz., ACS 2014, 2015, 2016, 2017, and 2018, to represent the neighborhood characteristics of 2018 and to enhance the reliability of the covariates at the census tract level.

The focal explanatory variables are neighborhood status and individual status. Neighborhood status is a variable derived from the comparison of neighborhood median family income. In general, the average measure of income is widely used to characterize neighborhood quality (Firebaugh and Schroeder 2009). It is also often employed to measure neighborhood attainment (Hwang and Ding 2020; Leibbrand et al. 2019). As indicated above, neighborhood status in the neighborhood j is operationalized using the comparison function proposed by Jasso (2001b):

$$Z_j = \ln \frac{x_j}{\phi E(X)} \tag{2.6}$$

where x_j denotes median income of the neighborhood j where the household resides, and $E(X)$ represents median income of the other neighborhoods that the reference group lives. In other words,

$E(X)$ is the median neighborhood income of the reference level instead of merely the aggregated median family income of the other neighborhoods. Given that residential mobility and migration tightly relate to households' life-course stages, the reference level is defined as the group sharing the same age interval (25-44 years old, 45-64 years old, or 65 years old and above) and level of education (less than high school, high school, some college, college, or graduate school) (e.g., Distante 2013; Liu and Sakamoto 2005; Yngwe et al. 2003). Considering that neighborhood conditions may vary by area, the reference group is also region-conditioned (the Northeast, the Midwest, the South, or the West). To capture its potential nonlinear feature, Z_j is grouped into four categories: (1) below than the comparison level by over 25% (Z_j < -.25), (2) below the comparison level by less than or equal to 25% (-.25 ≤ Z_j < 0), (3) equal to or above the comparison level by less than 25% (0 ≤ Z_j < .25), and (4) above the comparison level by at least 25% (Z_j ≥ .25). In short, households in the first group have the lowest neighborhood status in terms of their median neighborhood income, and those in the fourth group possess the highest neighborhood status.

Individual status of household i in the neighborhood j, is defined using the status function in status theory (Jasso 2001a):

$$S_{ij} = \ln \frac{1}{1-r_{ij}} \tag{2.7}$$

where r_{ij} refers the relative rank ranging from zero to one on the household's family income. Higher S_{ij} indicates higher individual status within a neighborhood. That is, advantaged individual status relative to the neighbors in terms of the standing in the community socioeconomic distribution. In general, the local status measure, S_{ij}, has the following two advantages over conventional relative deprivation measures (Jasso 1996, 2001a). First, unlike traditional relative deprivation measures which only focus on the individuals whose desired good is below the

reference level, the local status measure, S_{ij}, captures both relative deprivation and relative satisfaction groups (see also Stewart 2006). Second, due to the logarithmic specification, the local status measure, S_{ij}, is consistent with the criterion of scale invariance in measuring inequality (see also Allison 1978). To heed its potential non-linearity, S_{ij} is categorized into quintile groups. Households in the first quintile have the lowest individual status due to the comparison of their family income with their neighbors. In contrast, households in the fifth quintile possess the highest individual status.

Numerous covariates at the individual or neighborhood level are held constant (Table 1). Control variables at the individual level include the respondent's sex (male [omitted] vs. female), age group (25-44 years old [omitted], 45-64 years old, and 65 years old or over), race/ethnicity (non-Hispanic white [omitted], black, Hispanic, Asian, Native American, and other races), level of education (less than higher school [omitted], high school, some college, college, and graduate school), marital status (married [omitted], separated/divorced/widowed, and never married/single), presence of children under age 18 in the family (not presence [omitted] vs. presence), nativity (native-born [omitted] vs. foreign-born), and whether living in a Metropolitan Division one year ago (no [omitted] vs. yes). Control variables at the census tract level are population size in logged form, the proportion of non-Hispanic white residents, the proportion of residents sharing the same level of education with the respondent, and the proportions of residents who were less than 25, 25-44, 45-64, and 65 years old or over, respectively (Amaral 2008). Additionally, state of residence one year ago is also held constant.

>>> Table 1 <<<

This study employs multinomial logistic regressions with the specifications of standard errors clustered by census tracts and state fixed-effects. The analyses concentrate on the coefficients of neighborhood status, i.e., the coefficients of Z_j, and of the interactions between neighborhood status and individual status (S_{ij}).

6. Results

This study examines whether and how neighborhood status – the relative position of median family income compared to the reference level – relates to household relocation practices, and how the relationship is contingent on individual status denoted as the household's relative position in the local socioeconomic spectrum. The analyses concentrate on the impact of neighborhood status and its interplay with individual status in shaping household geographic mobility. Given that within-county and between-county mobilities are often motivated by different reasons – housing versus employment, this study makes a distinction between them.

As shown in Model 1 of Table 2, neighborhood status matters to within-county mobility. Specifically, compared to those with neighborhood status slightly higher than the reference level sharing the same age interval and level of education (i.e., high NB status), households possessing the most disadvantaged neighborhood status (very low NB status) are generally more likely to move within-county by around 8.6% ($p < .001$), net of the covariates at the household and neighborhood level. In contrast, the difference between low NB status and high NB status in mobility tendency is indistinguishable and falls below the significance level ($b = .965$, $p > .05$). Moreover, the propensity to move within a county of households with the most advantaged

neighborhood status (very high NB status) is more instead of less evident by around 16% ($p < .001$) than their counterparts with high NB status.

>>> Table 2 <<<

Disadvantaged neighborhood residency is associated with between-county mobility in a manner contrary to the moves within counties, according to Table 3. More precisely, as Model 1 reports, compared to the peers holding moderately advantaged neighborhood status (high NB status), households living in a community with disadvantaged neighborhood status, including very low NB status and low NB status alike, are less rather than more likely to move between counties by around 11.2% ($p < .001$) or 6.9% ($p < .01$). Conversely, households living in the most privileged communities exhibit a higher propensity to move across county lines than their slightly advantaged counterparts by around 16.1% ($p < .001$). The results reveal that, when experiencing less advantaged neighborhood status, households are prone to relocate in the short- instead of the long-distance way. The findings align with previous literature, suggesting that short-distance moves are more related to housing reasons than long-distance ones. Besides, as shown below, despite households with privileged neighborhood status tend to relocate themselves, whether across county lines or not, their mobility propensity is largely contingent on individual status.

>>> Table 3 <<<

To illustrate, Model 2 of Tables 2 and 3 reports the disparity in moving tendency among households with different individual statuses, i.e., relative position within a community. Generally speaking, geographic mobility is negatively related to individual status. Households possessing comparatively disadvantaged family incomes than the neighbors are more likely to leave a community through moving within counties by approximately 34.7% ($p < .001$) or 11.5% (p

< .001), or through moving between counties by around 56.6% ($p < .001$) or 20.4% ($p < .001$), respectively. On the contrary, households with relatively privileged individual status tend to remain to stay in a community. Overall, households experiencing greater relative deprivation due to less privileged individual status are prone to leave a community, either across county lines or not.

Model 3 of Tables 2 and 3 incorporates neighborhood status and individual status into the same regressions. Although not identical, the coefficients of neighborhood status and individual status in Model 3 are by and large analogous to the previous two models, suggesting the independent implications of neighborhood status and individual status for geographic mobility. It is worth noting that, when individual status is held constant, the gap in the propensity to move within counties between households with very low and high neighborhood status further increases from 8.6% to 13.4%. By comparison, the disparity between households in the most privileged communities and the slightly advantaged ones reduce to 12.8% from 16.0%. The changes in relocation tendency to some extent imply that nontrivial but opposite roles of individual status in spurring residential mobility for households with various neighborhood statuses. The results provide partial support for Hypothesis 1. Although households residing in the most disadvantaged communities in terms of neighborhood status are likely to leave the neighborhood, the results only apply to the moves within counties. However, such evident relocation tendency is also shown for households in the most privileged neighborhoods, indicating a non-linear relationship between neighborhood status and geographic mobility.

In addition to the investigation of whether households with disadvantaged neighborhood status are likely to leave a community, this study concentrates on the extent to which, if any, neighborhood status interacts with individual status in shaping geographic mobility. Model 4 of

Tables 2 and 3 reports the corresponding coefficients. To help with interpretation, Figures 1 and 2 visualize the results based on Model 4.

First, according to Figure 1, households in the least advantaged neighborhoods do not exhibit a notably decreasing rate of propensity to move within counties with the growth of individual status. Specifically, for households living in a community where neighborhood status is very low, their relocation probability modestly declines from 4.2% to 3.8% with the rise of individual status. By comparison, the probability of moving within counties for households in the second least advantaged communities diminishes significantly from 4.2% to 2.9% when their individual status becomes more advantaged. The results lend some support to Hypothesis 2 and the relative income perspective. That is, the evident tendency to leave a community where neighborhood status is less favorable is alleviated and compensated for by the possession of privileged individual status. However, the trend is limited to the households whose neighborhood status is not the most disadvantaged.

>>> Figure 1 <<<

Despite the fact that households with the most disadvantaged neighborhoods do not display an increasing propensity for within-county mobility when individual status is on the rise, their tendency to leave a community and move within counties is significantly higher than those who share the analogous individual status but residing in more advantaged communities. Precisely speaking, as Figure 1 illustrates, among households with the highest individual status, those in the most disadvantaged communities are noticeably more potential to relocate themselves within counties (3.8%), compared to their counterparts in relatively advantaged neighborhoods with 2.9%, 2.9% and, 3.1% mobility rate, respectively. Therefore, the results provide some evidence for

Hypothesis3 and the spatial assimilation perspective, indicating that households are prone to leave the communities where neighborhood status downwardly mismatches with their individual status.

Concerning how living in prosperous neighborhoods dampens the impact of being disadvantaged relative to the neighbors on geographic mobility, based on Figure 1, as individual status becomes less privileged, households generally reveal an increasing rather than a decreasing tendency to leave a community and move within-county, especially for those with the most advantaged neighborhood status. This is to say, living in a high-status neighborhood does not alleviate the effect of relative deprivation in motivating geographic mobility. Hence, the results do not echo the status signaling perspective, which asserts the role of privileged neighborhood status in compensation for the experience of relative deprivation. These findings lend little support to Hypothesis 4.

Moreover, according to Figure 1, households with the least advantaged individual status and in the highest status neighborhoods exhibit a more remarkable relocation tendency than their peers sharing the same individual status but in lower status communities. Specifically, among those whose local standing is the least favorable than the neighbors, the probability of moving within counties is the highest for households in the most well-off communities (5.3%), followed by 4.6%, 4.2%, and 4.2% each. Consequently, the patterns align with Hypothesis 5 and the relative deprivation perspective. That is, the experience of relative deprivation is seemed to amplify when being surrounded by affluent neighbors, thereby triggering geographic mobility.

As for between-county mobility, according to Figure 2, the patterns indicated above generally persist but tend to be less evident, except for Hypothesis 2. More detailed, households in the most disadvantaged communities in terms of neighborhood status but occupying the most privileged position in the local socioeconomic distribution appear not to have a more apparent

propensity to move between counties than those who share the same individual status and in more advantaged communities. The results, to some degree, suggest that neighborhood status and individual status derived from the comparison mechanisms play a relatively crucial role in spurring short-distance moves with are more related to residential reasons than long-distance geographic mobility between counties.

>>> Figure 2 <<<

Figures 1 and 2 also show that relocation tendencies – within- and between-county mobilities alike – for households residing in the more advantaged neighborhood largely depend on their relative positions in local socioeconomic distribution. Paralleling the two figures, households with noticeable propensities to move within- or between-county are typically those whose individual status is incompatible with and disadvantaged than their favorable neighborhood status. Indeed, for high neighborhood status households with a smaller degree of status discrepancy or enjoying higher individual status, their mobility tendencies are slightly lower than – in terms of within-county mobility – or similar to – regarding between-county mobility – their low neighborhood status counterparts. Thus, the least advantaged neighborhood status plays a role in motivating residential mobility, especially when individual status is not the most disadvantaged.

7. Conclusion and Discussion

Although the literature has pointed out that unfavorable community conditions tend to trigger out-migration, the extent to which people move out of a neighborhood where socioeconomic attributes are relatively disadvantaged than the comparison level remains uncharted, let alone how neighborhood status in a relative sense interrelates with residents' socioeconomic

standing in relation to their neighbors – individual status within a community – in motivating geographic mobility. This study fills this vacancy through the investigation of whether and how neighborhood status characterizing by the relative position of community socioeconomic characteristics sprung from the comparison of median family income with other communities as the reference level relates to households' geographic mobility, including within-county and between-county mobilities, and how the association varies with households' individual status featured by the rank of family income in the local income distribution.

A household's neighborhood status and individual status are potentially inconsistent or opposite. Residents holding low neighborhood status may have high individual status when the reference level shifts from other communities to the neighbors. In the same vein, people enjoying high neighborhood status may possess low individual status when residing with the more well-off neighbors. Both scenarios lead to status discrepancy or mismatch. Based on relative income and spatial assimilation perspectives, this study tests two hypotheses derived from low neighborhood status and high individual status; besides, according to status signaling and relative deprivation perspectives, two hypotheses are drawn to examine the inconsistency between low individual status and high neighborhood status.

Generally speaking, neighborhood status plays a role in shaping geographic mobility, and the relationship is mainly contingent on a household's individual status. On the one hand, possessing the lowest neighborhood status tends to spur short-distance moves within-county, and such mobility rate is not mitigated when individual status rises as the relative income perspective anticipates. However, compared to those sharing the analogous local position meanwhile owning more prosperous neighborhood status, households occupying the most privileged individual status but in the communities with the lowest neighborhood status are more likely to move within-county,

lending support to the spatial assimilation perspective. Additionally, the relocation propensity for households with low but not the lowest neighborhood status declines when individual status improves, providing evidence for the relative income perspective.

On the other hand, households with advantageous neighborhood status are likely to relocate within county lines when individual status is unfavorable in the local socioeconomic distribution. This is especially the case for those in the most privileged communities. Moreover, when looking across different levels of neighborhood status, compared to those sharing the same most disadvantageous individual status while living in low-status neighborhoods, residents in the communities with the highest neighborhood status are more likely to leave a community. The results are in line with relative deprivation instead of status signaling perspective, suggesting that occupying the least privileged position in relation to the neighbors is magnified rather than being countervailed by favorable neighborhood status.

Low neighborhood status tends not to motivate residents to move in a long-distance manner across counties. By contrast, households with low individual status and not living in the most disadvantaged communities are likely to move between counties. The results indicate that neighborhood status is more related to short-distance mobility, which is usually driven by residential reasons, and possessing the most disadvantageous individual status while not residing in the least advantageous neighborhoods may provoke residents to move long-distance to enhance their economic opportunities.

This study offers a contemporary picture regarding the dynamics between neighborhood status and individual status in explaining Americans' geographic mobility. Generally speaking, being located in advantaged local socioeconomic distribution play a negligible part in attenuating the effect of living in the most disadvantaged but not the moderately disadvantaged communities

which triggers short-distance out-mobility. Besides, upward status mismatch, i.e., occupying the most unprivileged position across the local socioeconomic spectrum in the relatively most prosperous communities, tends to provoke out-mobility in both short- and long-distance ways. The result, to some extent, suggests that such status upward discrepancy may provoke residential mobility with changes in local relative socioeconomic position or internal migration accompanied by an alteration in absolute socioeconomic attributes.

An obvious limitation of this study lies in the selection of thresholds in grouping communities into differential neighborhood status measured by the comparison function with the specific definition of reference groups. Given that the results may be sensitive to alternative operationalizations, a series of robustness checks is needed to be carried out to cope with this caveat. For the next steps, first, this study will compare the results obtained by different thresholds in categorizing communities with differential neighborhood statuses. Second, in addition to characterizing the reference group as the households in the same age group and level of education, the results by defining the reference group as the average socioeconomic conditions across communities in the same county will be reported.

In addition to the interaction between neighborhood and individual statuses, the interplay between neighborhood status or individual status and residents' absolute socioeconomic or demographic attributes also offers theoretical insights into explaining geographic mobility. For example, in the American context, race/ethnicity undoubtedly is a crucial ingredient not only in shaping mobility tendency but also in conditioning the opportunities for realizing residential attainment. As widely acknowledged by the place stratification and the group preferences perspectives, institutional barriers, structural obstacles, and racial/ethnic preferences are pivotal to geographic mobility as well as the community characteristics following relocation.

Likewise, how community features in the adjacent areas account for geographic mobility also remains to be learned. For instance, Crowder and South (2008) have stated that neighborhood characteristics such as racial/ethnic compositions in extralocal areas, i.e., "areas surrounding a neighborhood of residence," influence geographic mobility. Relatedly, housing availability derived from the local housing stock of an area also shapes residential mobility (Crowder et al. 2012; South and Crowder 1997). As a result, extending the notion of relative status from a neighborhood to the surrounding areas with the spatial approach is beneficial to advancing geographic mobility literature.

Whether and how neighborhood status or individual status changes or even raises after geographic mobility is worth further investigation in future studies as well. As indicated by prior studies, rather than improvement, relocation for some socioeconomically disadvantaged individuals or households keeps them remaining in unfavorable community conditions (DeLuca and Jang-Trettien 2020; DeLuca, Wood, and Rosenblatt 2019; Harvey et al. 2020; Huang et al. 2021; Sampson 2012; Sharkey 2013). Moreover, a substantial portion of geographic mobility for the socioeconomically unprivileged groups is due to forced instead of voluntary reasons. In this case, the examination of the changes in neighborhood or individual status before and after moving not only provides us with a more comprehensive understanding of geographic mobility but also sheds light on the stratification mechanisms underlying social inequalities.

8. References

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Table 1. Descriptive statistics of heads of households with at least 25 years of age and census tract variables

Variables	Mean	Standard Deviation
Household head variables (2019 ACS)		
Mobility status		
Did not move	0.9322	—
Moved within-county	0.0376	—
Moved between-county	0.0301	—
Neighborhood status	-0.0109	0.4029
Individual status	1.0240	0.9882
Female	0.4753	—
Age group		
Aged 25-44	0.3518	—
Aged 45-64	0.4139	—
Aged 65+	0.2343	—
Race/ethnicity		
Non-Hispanic white	0.6641	—
Black	0.1088	—
Hispanic	0.1502	—
Asian	0.0543	—
Native American	0.0058	—
Other races	0.0167	—
Foreign born	0.1763	—
Educational attainment		
Less than high school	0.0936	—
High school	0.2306	—
Some college	0.3032	—
College	0.2184	—
Graduate school	0.1543	—
Marital status		
Married	0.7607	—
Separated, divorced, or widowed	0.1503	—
Never Married or single	0.0889	—
Presence of at least one child in the household	0.3998	—
Metropolitan Division areas	0.2584	—
Census tract variables (2014-2018 ACS)		
Population size	27,700	16,000
Proportion of non-Hispanic white residents	0.6413	0.2904
Proportion of residents less than 25 years old	0.3073	0.0728
Proportion of residents between 25-44 years old	0.2633	0.0699
Proportion of residents between 45-64 years old	0.2709	0.0551
Proportion of residents 65 years old or over	0.1585	0.0779
Proportion of same level of education residents	0.2920	0.1199

Note: Population size (weighted) (N) = 1,169,000.
Source: 2014-2019 American Community Surveys 1-year estimates.

Table 2. Multinomial logistic models estimating the effects of neighborhood status and individual status on geographic mobility (moved within-county vs. did not move) (selected odds ratios)

Variables	Model 1	Model 2	Model 3	Model 4
Neighborhood status				
Very low	1.086***		1.134***	1.248***
	(0.025)		(0.026)	(0.058)
Low	0.965		0.982	1.026
	(0.021)		(0.021)	(0.050)
High	ref.		ref.	ref.
Very high	1.160***		1.128***	1.103*
	(0.025)		(0.024)	(0.052)
Individual status				
First quintile (the lowest)		1.347***	1.346***	1.483***
		(0.030)	(0.030)	(0.066)
Second quintile		1.115***	1.116***	1.147**
		(0.025)	(0.025)	(0.053)
Third quintile		ref.	ref.	ref.
Fourth quintile		0.898***	0.898***	0.920
		(0.020)	(0.021)	(0.045)
Fifth quintile (the highest)		0.904***	0.904***	0.893*
		(0.021)	(0.021)	(0.043)
Very low x First quintile				0.718***
				(0.045)
Very low x Second quintile				0.868*
				(0.054)
Very low x Fourth quintile				0.981
				(0.062)
Very low x Fifth quintile				1.064
				(0.066)
Low x First quintile				0.882
				(0.056)
Low x Second quintile				1.030
				(0.068)
Low x Fourth quintile				0.969
				(0.066)
Low x Fifth quintile				0.951
				(0.065)
Very high x First quintile				1.059
				(0.063)
Very high x Second quintile				1.041
				(0.066)
Very high x Fourth quintile				0.935
				(0.064)
Very high x Fifth quintile				0.954
				(0.066)

Household controls	yes	yes	yes	yes
Neighborhood controls	yes	yes	yes	yes
State FE	yes	yes	yes	yes
Constant	0.067***	0.068***	0.066***	0.060***
	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.009)

Note: Population size weighted (N) = 1,169,000. Robust standard errors in parentheses.
*** Significant at $p < .001$; ** Significant at $p < .01$; * Significant at $p < .05$.
Source: 2014-2019 American Community Surveys (ACS) 1-year estimates.

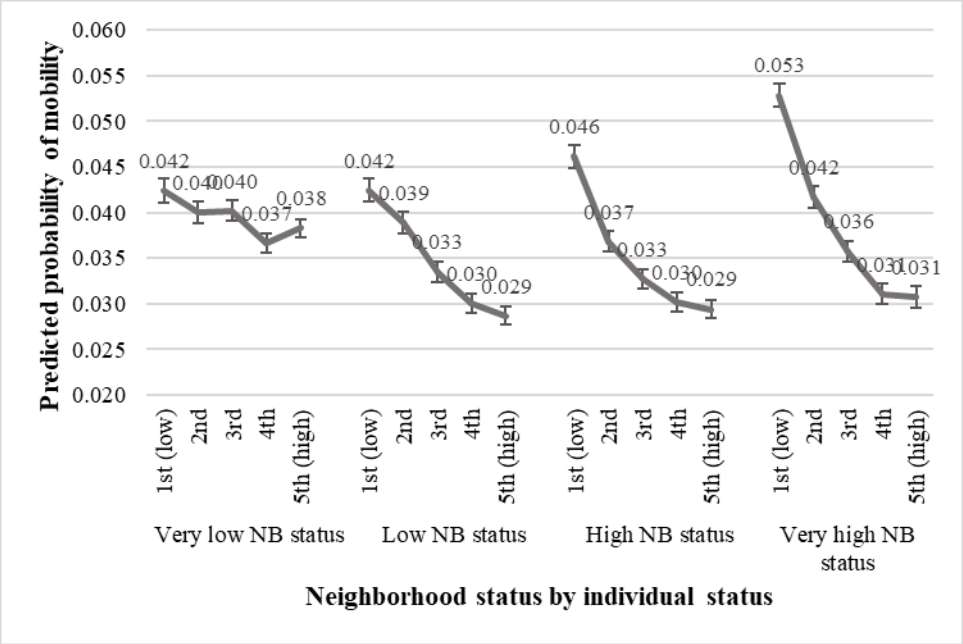
Table 3. Multinomial logistic models estimating effects of neighborhood status and individual status on geographic mobility (moved between-county vs. did not move) (selected odds ratios)

Variables	Model 1	Model 2	Model 3	Model 4
Neighborhood status				
Very low	0.889***		0.932**	1.047
	(0.023)		(0.024)	(0.054)
Low	0.932**		0.951*	0.993
	(0.022)		(0.022)	(0.050)
High	ref.		ref.	ref.
Very high	1.161***		1.121***	1.086
	(0.026)		(0.025)	(0.052)
Individual status				
First quintile (the lowest)		1.566***	1.541***	1.686***
		(0.038)	(0.038)	(0.078)
Second quintile		1.204***	1.194***	1.257***
		(0.029)	(0.029)	(0.060)
Third quintile		ref.	ref.	ref.
Fourth quintile		0.952*	0.957	0.986
		(0.023)	(0.024)	(0.049)
Fifth quintile (the highest)		0.970	0.979	0.927
		(0.024)	(0.024)	(0.046)
Very low x First quintile				0.678***
				(0.048)
Very low x Second quintile				0.801**
				(0.057)
Very low x Fourth quintile				0.912
				(0.063)
Very low x Fifth quintile				1.100
				(0.074)
Low x First quintile				0.863*
				(0.060)
Low x Second quintile				0.947
				(0.066)
Low x Fourth quintile				1.001
				(0.070)
Low x Fifth quintile				1.050
				(0.073)
Very high x First quintile				1.050
				(0.065)
Very high x Second quintile				1.043
				(0.068)
Very high x Fourth quintile				0.970
				(0.067)
Very high x Fifth quintile				0.990
				(0.070)

Household controls	yes	yes	yes	yes
Neighborhood controls	yes	yes	yes	yes
State FE	yes	yes	yes	yes
Constant	0.087***	0.060***	0.079***	0.072***
	(0.015)	(0.010)	(0.013)	(0.012)

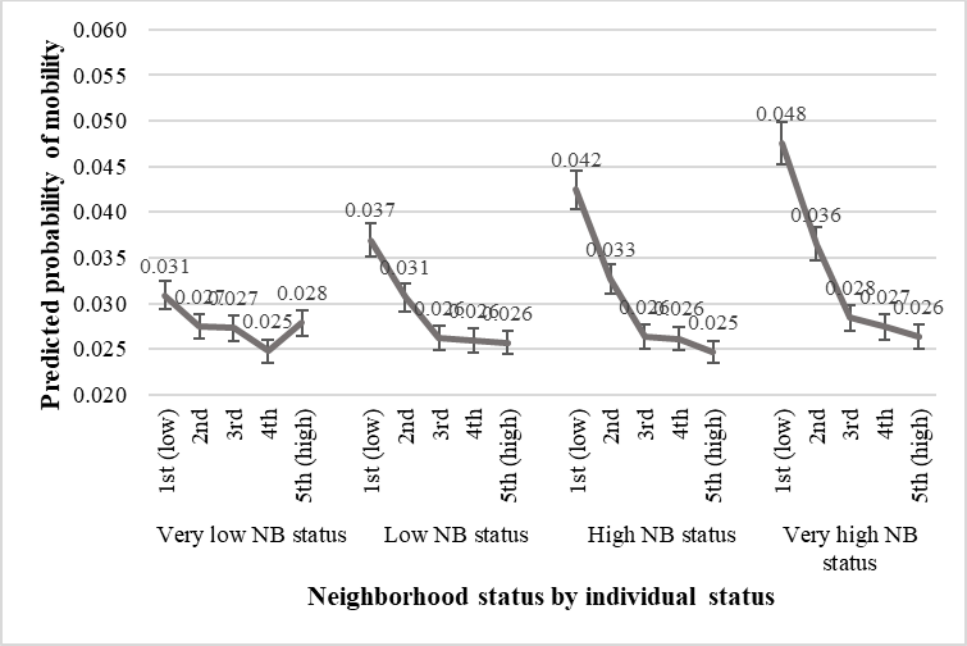
Note: Population size weighted (N) = 1,169,000. Robust standard errors in parentheses.
*** Significant at $p < .001$; ** Significant at $p < .01$; * Significant at $p < .05$.
Source: 2014-2019 American Community Surveys (ACS) 1-year estimates.

Figure 1. Predicted geographic mobility probabilities estimated from Model 4, Table 2 (moved within-county) by individual status (1st to 5th quintile) and neighborhood status



Source: 2014-2019 American Community Surveys (ACS) 1-year estimates.

Figure 2. Predicted geographic mobility probabilities estimated from Model 4, Table 3 (moved between-county) by individual status (1st to 5th quintile) and neighborhood status



Source: 2014-2019 American Community Surveys (ACS) 1-year estimates.

Appendix

Table A1. Multinomial logistic models estimating the effects neighborhood status and individual status on geographic mobility (moved within-county vs. did not move) (all odds ratios)

Variables	Model 1	Model 2	Model 3	Model 4
Neighborhood status				
Very low	1.086***		1.134***	1.248***
	(0.025)		(0.026)	(0.058)
Low	0.965		0.982	1.026
	(0.021)		(0.021)	(0.050)
High	ref.		ref.	ref.
Very high	1.160***		1.128***	1.103*
	(0.025)		(0.024)	(0.052)
Individual status				
First quintile (the lowest)		1.347***	1.346***	1.483***
		(0.030)	(0.030)	(0.066)
Second quintile		1.115***	1.116***	1.147**
		(0.025)	(0.025)	(0.053)
Third quintile		ref.	ref.	ref.
Fourth quintile		0.898***	0.898***	0.920
		(0.020)	(0.021)	(0.045)
Fifth quintile (the highest)		0.904***	0.904***	0.893*
		(0.021)	(0.021)	(0.043)
Very low x First quintile				0.718***
				(0.045)
Very low x Second quintile				0.868*
				(0.054)
Very low x Fourth quintile				0.981
				(0.062)
Very low x Fifth quintile				1.064
				(0.066)
Low x First quintile				0.882
				(0.056)
Low x Second quintile				1.030
				(0.068)
Low x Fourth quintile				0.969
				(0.066)
Low x Fifth quintile				0.951
				(0.065)
Very high x First quintile				1.059
				(0.063)
Very high x Second quintile				1.041
				(0.066)
Very high x Fourth quintile				0.935
				(0.064)

Very high x Fifth quintile				0.954
				(0.066)
Female	1.037*	1.015	1.015	1.017
	(0.015)	(0.015)	(0.015)	(0.015)
Age group				
Aged 25-44	ref.	ref.	ref.	ref.
Aged 45-64	0.387***	0.391***	0.390***	0.392***
	(0.007)	(0.007)	(0.007)	(0.007)
Aged 65+	0.182***	0.173***	0.173***	0.172***
	(0.005)	(0.005)	(0.005)	(0.005)
Race/ethnicity				
Non-Hispanic white	ref.	ref.	ref.	ref.
Black	1.177***	1.155***	1.152***	1.154***
	(0.034)	(0.033)	(0.033)	(0.033)
Hispanic	0.942*	0.929**	0.931**	0.928**
	(0.026)	(0.025)	(0.025)	(0.025)
Asian	1.150***	1.147***	1.142***	1.145***
	(0.040)	(0.040)	(0.040)	(0.040)
Native American	0.863	0.850	0.845	0.846
	(0.087)	(0.085)	(0.085)	(0.085)
Other races	1.237***	1.213***	1.211***	1.212***
	(0.058)	(0.057)	(0.057)	(0.057)
Foreign born	0.929**	0.902***	0.903***	0.901***
	(0.023)	(0.023)	(0.023)	(0.023)
Educational attainment				
Less than high school	ref.	ref.	ref.	ref.
High school	1.076*	1.104**	1.101**	1.117**
	(0.037)	(0.038)	(0.038)	(0.038)
Some college	1.169***	1.231***	1.223***	1.240***
	(0.039)	(0.042)	(0.041)	(0.042)
College	1.172***	1.292***	1.274***	1.282***
	(0.040)	(0.044)	(0.043)	(0.044)
Graduate school	1.190***	1.345***	1.324***	1.327***
	(0.041)	(0.047)	(0.047)	(0.047)
Marital status				
Married	ref.	ref.	ref.	ref.
Separated, divorced, or widowed	1.600***	1.451***	1.451***	1.448***
	(0.032)	(0.029)	(0.029)	(0.029)
Never Married or single	1.422***	1.267***	1.264***	1.273***
	(0.034)	(0.031)	(0.031)	(0.031)
Presence of at least one child in the household	0.987	0.961*	0.962*	0.970
	(0.017)	(0.017)	(0.017)	(0.017)
Metropolitan Division areas	0.932*	0.944*	0.936**	0.936**
	(0.021)	(0.021)	(0.021)	(0.021)
Population size (ln)	0.818***	0.807***	0.815***	0.817***
	(0.015)	(0.014)	(0.014)	(0.014)

Prop. non-Hispanic white	0.755***	0.698***	0.718***	0.714***
	(0.034)	(0.030)	(0.033)	(0.032)
Age structure				
Prop. less than 25 years old	0.363***	0.414***	0.374***	0.385***
	(0.055)	(0.063)	(0.056)	(0.058)
Prop. between 25-44 years old	9.047***	8.842***	8.783***	8.561***
	(1.307)	(1.278)	(1.269)	(1.238)
Prop. between 45-64 years old	0.172***	0.173***	0.170***	0.175***
	(0.039)	(0.038)	(0.038)	(0.039)
Prop. 65 years old or over	ref.	ref.	ref.	ref.
Prop. same level of education	1.360***	1.371***	1.373***	1.539***
	(0.090)	(0.088)	(0.091)	(0.103)
State FE	yes	yes	yes	yes
Constant	0.067***	0.068***	0.066***	0.060***
	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.009)

Note: Population size weighted (N) = 1,169,000. Robust standard errors in parentheses.
*** Significant at $p < .001$; ** Significant at $p < .01$; * Significant at $p < .05$.
Source: 2014-2019 American Community Surveys (ACS) 1-year estimates.

Table A2. Multinomial logistic models estimating effects of neighborhood status and individual status on geographic mobility (moved between-county vs. did not move) (all odds ratios)

Variables	Model 1	Model 2	Model 3	Model 4
Neighborhood status				
Very low	0.889***		0.932**	1.047
	(0.023)		(0.024)	(0.054)
Low	0.932**		0.951*	0.993
	(0.022)		(0.022)	(0.050)
High	ref.		ref.	ref.
Very high	1.161***		1.121***	1.086
	(0.026)		(0.025)	(0.052)
Individual status				
First quintile (the lowest)		1.566***	1.541***	1.686***
		(0.038)	(0.038)	(0.078)
Second quintile		1.204***	1.194***	1.257***
		(0.029)	(0.029)	(0.060)
Third quintile		ref.	ref.	ref.
Fourth quintile		0.952*	0.957	0.986
		(0.023)	(0.024)	(0.049)
Fifth quintile (the highest)		0.970	0.979	0.927
		(0.024)	(0.024)	(0.046)
Very low x First quintile				0.678***
				(0.048)
Very low x Second quintile				0.801**
				(0.057)
Very low x Fourth quintile				0.912
				(0.063)
Very low x Fifth quintile				1.100
				(0.074)
Low x First quintile				0.863*
				(0.060)
Low x Second quintile				0.947
				(0.066)
Low x Fourth quintile				1.001
				(0.070)
Low x Fifth quintile				1.050
				(0.073)
Very high x First quintile				1.050
				(0.065)
Very high x Second quintile				1.043
				(0.068)
Very high x Fourth quintile				0.970
				(0.067)
Very high x Fifth quintile				0.990
				(0.070)

Female	0.951**	0.927***	0.931***	0.932***
	(0.015)	(0.015)	(0.015)	(0.015)
Age group				
Aged 25-44	ref.	ref.	ref.	ref.
Aged 45-64	0.360***	0.363***	0.363***	0.365***
	(0.007)	(0.007)	(0.007)	(0.007)
Aged 65+	0.229***	0.212***	0.213***	0.213***
	(0.006)	(0.006)	(0.006)	(0.006)
Race/ethnicity				
Non-Hispanic white	ref.	ref.	ref.	ref.
African American	0.950	0.930*	0.928*	0.930*
	(0.034)	(0.034)	(0.034)	(0.034)
Hispanic	0.802***	0.790***	0.791***	0.790***
	(0.028)	(0.027)	(0.027)	(0.027)
Asian	1.042	1.051	1.035	1.036
	(0.041)	(0.041)	(0.040)	(0.040)
Native American	1.156	1.126	1.128	1.133
	(0.133)	(0.129)	(0.130)	(0.130)
Other races	1.262***	1.234***	1.233***	1.234***
	(0.064)	(0.063)	(0.063)	(0.063)
Foreign born	0.880***	0.847***	0.848***	0.848***
	(0.027)	(0.026)	(0.026)	(0.026)
Educational attainment				
Less than high school	ref.	ref.	ref.	ref.
High school	1.057	1.102*	1.092*	1.106*
	(0.046)	(0.048)	(0.048)	(0.048)
Some college	1.347***	1.441***	1.432***	1.450***
	(0.056)	(0.061)	(0.060)	(0.061)
College	1.605***	1.751***	1.776***	1.782***
	(0.067)	(0.074)	(0.075)	(0.075)
Graduate school	1.838***	2.034***	2.080***	2.076***
	(0.078)	(0.087)	(0.090)	(0.090)
Marital status				
Married	ref.	ref.	ref.	ref.
Separated, divorced, or widowed	1.081**	0.955	0.966	0.969
	(0.026)	(0.024)	(0.024)	(0.024)
Never Married or single	1.026	0.879***	0.892***	0.904**
	(0.031)	(0.027)	(0.028)	(0.028)
Presence of at least one child in the household	0.715***	0.701***	0.699***	0.706***
	(0.014)	(0.013)	(0.013)	(0.013)
Metropolitan Division areas	0.952*	0.992	0.956	0.957
	(0.023)	(0.024)	(0.023)	(0.023)
Population size (ln)	0.926***	0.950**	0.924***	0.926***
	(0.018)	(0.018)	(0.018)	(0.018)
Prop. non-Hispanic white	1.151**	1.194**	1.089***	1.084***
	(0.062)	(0.062)	(0.058)	(0.058)

Age structure				
Prop. less than 25 years old	0.438***	0.485***	0.441***	0.459***
	(0.073)	(0.081)	(0.073)	(0.076)
Prop. between 25-44 years old	4.231***	4.576***	4.075***	3.969***
	(0.661)	(0.718)	(0.637)	(0.621)
Prop. between 45-64 years old	0.065***	0.092***	0.064***	0.066***
	(0.016)	(0.022)	(0.016)	(0.016)
Prop. 65 years old or over	ref.	ref.	ref.	ref.
Prop. same level of education	0.668***	0.798**	0.682***	0.764***
	(0.050)	(0.056)	(0.051)	(0.058)
State FE	yes	yes	yes	yes
Constant	0.087***	0.060***	0.079***	0.072***
	(0.015)	(0.010)	(0.013)	(0.012)

Note: Population size weighted (N) = 1,169,000. Robust standard errors in parentheses.
*** Significant at $p < .001$; ** Significant at $p < .01$; * Significant at $p < .05$.
Source: 2014-2019 American Community Surveys (ACS) 1-year estimates.